in the north Indian plains in the 1190s, Siddiqui's (2006: 14–15) observations are applicable to the higher rungs of the Turk slave market: "[T]hey were Persianized generals having nothing in common with the freeborn Saljuq or Ghuzz Turks … They were brought up as Muslims and trained in Muslim cultures and manners; the education of a slave was a good investment because an educated and cultured slave fetched a higher price."

93. Mahmud Ghaznavi was surely acting upon the imperative of transplanting strong Arabo-Persianate imperial foundations into Zabulistan and contiguous regions as he employed the "strong-arm methods" of virtually coercing scholars and literati to bejewel his court (cf. Bosworth [1963] 2015: 34, 129–130; Bosworth 1968a: 36, 38 and *passim*). See also Meisami 1999: 50ff. for a discussion of the possible reasons behind Mahmud's ambivalence toward Persian literature.
94. The areas of nomadism and seasonal transhumance were discussed in Chapter 2. For the Ghuris (and among them the future Shansabanis), their *garm-sir* areas in particular – in southern Ghur and Zamindawar, perhaps touching upon Sistan – would likely have offered a number of shrines or *ziyarat* dating from at least the eleventh century and likely earlier, though each of them surely fluctuated over the centuries in terms of their ability to attract pilgrims, depending on climate and shifts in river courses, among other unforeseeable factors. Cf. Ball 2019: e.g., Nos. 597/1114, 1264/2182, 1267.
95. For twentieth-century nomadic interactions with the shrines around Chisht, see esp. Utas 1980: 64. According to Khazeni (2012: 147–148), in the eighteenth–nineteenth centuries Central Asian Türkman nomads integrated Naqshbandi Sufi tombs in their migrations, particularly during their seasonal contacts with towns or market centers for commercial purposes. See also *supra* in this chapter. The reverse process of *murshid*s traveling to see their disciples in pastoralist communities – usually in the autumn, the traditional period of socializing when the harvest was in – was documented among the Helmand Baluch: cf. Amiri 2020: 153.
96. This was the case notwithstanding Green's (2019: 17) observation that "the gradually increasing numbers of [Saljuq- and Ghaznavid-patronized] madrasas and *khanaqah*s spread the use of written Persian across new *geographical* frontiers" (my emphasis): such proliferation of institutions of learning did not necessarily create greater Persian or Arabic literacy across lifeway frontiers, i.e., the nomadic/transhumant populations.
97. The absence of Persian on Shansabani-patronized architecture was noted by O'Kane (2009: 30) and Allegranzi (2019b [forthcoming], 2020), both of whom compared the Shansabani inscriptional corpus with that of the sophisticated and courtly Ghaznavids. By the time of the Ghaznavids' ascendancy in the eleventh century, Persian – both in verse as well as prose – had undergone a centuries-long rise alongside Arabic, particularly in courts of the eastern Islamic *ecumene*. By the dawn of the new millennium, specifically modern or "new" Persian had made inroads into the monopoly Arabic once had as *the* language of religious and literary textual production (cf. also Allegranzi 2015: 26–30, 32–35; Allegranzi 2019a, vol. I: 19–23; Green 2019: 9–10; and *supra* in main text).